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Behavioral ethics for Homo economicus, Homo heuristicus, and Homo duplex

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ABSTRACT

In this article we explore how assumptions about human nature may influence the ways one might try to promote ethical behavior in organizations. We summarize two common views of human nature in organizational research—*Homo economicus* and *Homo heuristicus*. We then extend these views by putting forward a third view of human nature initially proposed by Emile Durkheim—*Homo duplex*—which describes human beings as moving back and forth between a lower (individual) and higher (collective) level. We suggest that the Homo duplex view is uniquely equipped to account for variables of interest to organizational scholars because of its attention to a fundamental tension: People in organizations can be both selfish and groupish, and the balance between those tendencies influences the ethical profile of the organization in complex ways. We end with a discussion of the theoretical implications of the Homo duplex view for behavioral ethics researchers.

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Introduction

Human nature is complicated and full of apparent contradictions. We are capable of acts of uplifting heroism and repellant vice. We value honesty, yet most of us cheat under some circumstances (Ariely, 2012). We are selfish and altruistic; we are groupish and individualistic. What determines which aspects of our nature we show in a given context? That depends on your theory of human nature. In this article we explore how assumptions about human nature may influence the ways one might try to promote ethical behavior in organizations.

There have been many theories or models of human nature, proposed in the last century (Kupperman, 2010; Stevenson & Haberman, 1998). We use the term 'human nature' throughout this article in the everyday sense that all humans share certain patterns of thought, feeling, and behavior. In this article we begin with two of the broadest ways of understanding human nature, which have been prevalent in thinking about behavioral ethics and organizational behavior in general. We briefly describe Homo economicus ("economic man") and Homo heuristicus ("heuristic-using man"). We then introduce the *Homo duplex* view of human nature—a term used by Emile Durkheim (1992/1887), who conceived of people as living at two levels of consciousness that might affect social behavior: a lower "profane" or ordinary level at which individuals pursue their own goals, and a higher "sacred" level at which people feel that they are "simply a part of a whole."

To avoid the evaluative connotations of "lower" and "higher," and the religious connotations of "sacred," we refer to these two levels as the "individual" level of consciousness, and the "collective" level. Durkheim's basic point was that we sometimes shift out of our ordinary consciousness, in which we are individuals pursuing our own goals, into a more collective state. This shift, Durkheim claimed, has profound effects on our behavior. It influences our behavior not only while we are in the collective state but also long afterwards by increasing trust, cooperation, and identification at the group or organizational level (Kreiner & Ashforth, 2004; Peteraf & Shanley, 1997).

After presenting the three views of human nature, we discuss the theoretical implications of each view for behavioral ethics researchers. We suggest that the Homo economicus model is not wrong, it is just incomplete—it misses the many things people do that do not maximize their self-interest within organizations. For example, Homo economicus would not punish the selfish behavior of others at his or her own expense, but real people often do (Fehr

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& Gächter, 2002). The Homo heuristicus view improves on the Homo economicus view by offering a more psychologically realistic portrait of human behavior, which acknowledges the influence of the unconscious mind and our systematic biases. However, not even the Homo heuristicus view can fully explain the pervasive human desire to feel connected to and immersed within groups. Only the Homo duplex view allows us to understand the human capacity for self-transcendence into a more collective state and the impact that these highly groupish experiences can have on both positive and negative ethical behaviors.

Of course, there is a great deal of existing scholarship on groups, group dynamics, social identity, and intergroup conflict. All of this work is helpful for understanding social behavior in the groups and subgroups that comprise organizations. But we suggest that these groups are typically composed of people who are still in what Durkheim called the lower or "individual" state of consciousness—they are still very much aware of their own interests and individual identity. In this article we raise the possibility that there might be a gap in the literature. Specifically, we suggest that there might be mental states that are hard to study in the lab, but which can be attained within closely bonded groups during activities—such as the participation in ritual, religious activities, or dance—that activate ancient triggering mechanisms. It has been suggested that these kinds of activities might be underrepresented or poorly integrated in the organizational literature without a unifying framework based on a more psychologically realistic understanding of human nature (Wilson, Van Vugt, & O'Gorman, 2008). Motivated by recent scholarship in evolutionary and moral psychology, we propose that the Homo duplex view might add an important incremental layer of psychological realism to the way we conceive of and study human nature in organizations.

Three views of human nature

Homo economicus

The foundations of modern business practices were shaped by 18th and 19th century views of human nature (Morris, Urbanski, & Hunt, 2010; Persky, 1995). Enlightenment thinkers such as Adam Smith (1759, 1776) and David Hume (Solomon, 1993; Werhane, 1991) analyzed the ways that pure self-interest can motivate cooperation and activity that benefits society more broadly. As Hume (1739) put it:

> Your corn is ripe today; mine will be so tomorrow. 'Tis profitable for us both, that I should labour with you today, and that you should aid me tomorrow. I have no kindness for you, and know you have as little for me. I will not, therefore, take any pains upon your account; and should I labour with you upon my own account, in expectation of a return, I know I should be disappointed, and that I should in vain depend upon your gratitude. (Treatise of Human Nature, Bk III, sec. 5, p. 520)

This way of thinking led some economists and other social scientists to favor the idea that humans are rational, self-interested actors within systems of economic or social exchange. This model of human nature is often called Homo economicus ("economic man"). The term 'Homo economicus' was created as a pejorative in reference to John Stewart Mill's notion of humans as self-interested utilitarian maximizers of their individual preferences (see Persky, 1995). It is the foundation for the neoclassical school of economics and the neoclassical theory of the firm, which assumes that individual agents act rationally within a pool of other rational individual agents, each seeking to maximize his or her own utility, and each choosing actions independently based on the available information (Arrow, 1994; Frank, 1987, 1988; Udehn, 2002). To be clear, self-interested behavior and unethical behavior are not necessarily synonymous. There is nothing moral or immoral about making decisions in accordance with one's preferences or interests.

The Homo economicus model was consistent with early 20th century management principles. For instance, the principles of scientific management (Taylor, 1911), administration (Fayol, 1949), and bureaucratic control (Weber, 1946) all assume rational self-interest. These were reasonable frameworks for management given the increasingly rational and mechanistic character of early 20th century organizational life, which featured an immense division of labor, mass production, automation, and human–machine interaction.

The Homo economicus view has proven to be a useful model for the study of behavior. If you must explain all of human behavior with a single principle, then rational self-interest is a good candidate for being that principle. When all else is equal, people usually choose the action that gets them more of whatever they want, rather than less. This is why managers can increase productivity simply by aligning incentives. The most obvious example of incentive alignment is incentive pay, which is used in the majority of firms in the United States (Luthans & Stajkovic, 1999).

Homo heuristicus

Fortunately, however, we do not have to explain all behavior with a single principle. As behavioral evidence mounted that people do not always behave like Homo economicus, psychologists (e.g., Gigerenzer & Goldstein, 1996; Tversky & Kahneman, 1974), and economists (e.g., Frank, 1987, 1988) began to compile a catalog of the heuristics and biases that drive decision making and behavior, including ethical decisions and behaviors. Armed with this catalog, those who would like to design ethical systems have many additional tools for improving ethical behavior, beyond the incentive alignment strategies required by Homo economicus.

For example, people often use the heuristic of going with the default, or "leaving well enough alone." This is generally a good heuristic, given that people are generally held more accountable for their *actions* than for substantively equivalent *inactions* (Haidt & Baron, 1996). However, this heuristic can lead to a variety of ethically problematic outcomes. For example, even though people would receive praise for choosing to be organ donors after their death, in countries that use "do not donate" as the default, most people leave the default in place, leading to severe organ shortages and preventable deaths. In contrast, in countries that use "donate" as the default, the great majority of people leave that default in place (Johnson & Goldstein, 2003). This tendency has also been called the "status quo" bias (Johnson, 1988, pp. 7–59). Within organizations, it may contribute to the reluctance to blow whistles on bad behavior, particularly when that behavior has been going on for a while and has become the status quo. Rather than offering rewards for whistle blowing, Homo heuristicus might be more responsive to changes in the default behavior established by instituting review procedures, or strong social norms promoting whistle blowing (Trevino & Victor, 1992).

The Homo heuristicus view is a great improvement upon the Homo economicus view because it is more psychologically realistic. Some scholars who adopt this view read and cite the literature in evolutionary psychology (Bergstrom, 2002; Gintis, Bowles, Boyd, & Fehr, 2005; Henrich et al., 2001; Morris et al., 2010; Sober & Wilson, 1998). They note that natural selection did not (and could not) create a brain capable of fully and calmly weighing all available options. Instead, natural selection created brains (in humans and other animals) that did a rapid and *good enough* job of solving fundamental problems related to survival such as acquiring resources, obtaining social status, and maintaining relationships (Barkow, Tooby, & Cosmides, 1995). Evolution repeatedly solves problems

by selecting organisms that employ the best heuristics, and the best heuristics are rarely context-independent; they work well in the environment within which they were selected, but they often malfunction in new environments (Clark, 1999; Gigerenzer & Goldstein, 1996).

Sometimes managers have the ability to control the environment of their employees, and knowledge of common heuristics can help them craft environments to promote desirable behavior. For instance, raising the level of light in a room seems to activate a heuristic related to monitoring or being seen and tends to reduce dishonesty and selfishness (Zhong, Bohns, & Gino, 2010). In general, the Homo heuristicus model is consistent with the human relations approaches to management in organizations that began in the 1920s and continue today. These approaches conceive of organizations as organic, contingently cooperative social systems and communities (Barnard & Andrews, 1968; Follett, 1949; McGregor, 2006).

These approaches assume that people have complicated motivations, many of which are social or growth-oriented (e.g., self-actualization—(Maslow, 1943)), rather than materialistic. Homo heuristicus is often disposed to change behavior in light of socially relevant information, in addition to other kinds of information not directly or rationally related to the task at hand. For instance, the Hawthorne studies of worker productivity showed the strong effects of social demand characteristics in organizations (Mayo, 1933, however see also Jones, 1992; Levitt & List, 2011).

Homo duplex

The term *Homo duplex* was used by Emile Durkheim (1995/1915) to describe the fact, so obvious to many who study religion, that people move back and forth between two very different ways of being, each with its own set of emotions and goals. It is as though our minds have two levels, hence the term *duplex*, as shown in Fig. 1. The lower level is the level of the ordinary experience of the individual, pursuing his or her own goals. Durkheim called this the realm of the "profane," which simply means ordinary or commonplace. At this level people are highly individualized but they are still quite social, and they have social emotions that bind them to other individuals: "These [social emotions] include the sentiments of honor, respect, affection and fear which we may feel toward one another" (Durkheim, 1992/1887, p. 220). These emotions help people to cultivate good relationships and a good reputation, which will be beneficial for themselves as individuals in the long run.

Phase changes from individual states to group states

From his studies of religion, religious ritual, and people in groups more generally, Durkheim claimed that we sometimes change state, or change phase. We have a second set of social emotions, which are only possible when we are operating at the "higher" level, which he called the level of the "sacred":

> The second [set of emotions] are those which bind me to the social entity as a whole; these manifest themselves primarily in the relationships of the society with other societies, and could be called "inter-social." The first [set of emotions] leave my autonomy and personality almost intact. No doubt they tie me to others, but without taking much of my independence from me. When I act under the influence of the second, by contrast, *I am simply a part of a whole, whose actions I follow, and whose influence I am subject to*. (Durkheim, 1992/1887, pp. 219–20, emphasis added.)

Durkheim's two levels are quite visible in the traditional and aboriginal societies he was studying, where groups come together at socially or astrologically significant times to dance around a campfire, paint their bodies, and bond with each other (Durkheim, 1995/1915). Perhaps this distinction is of no use in modern, capitalist, secular, WEIRD societies such as ours? (WEIRD stands for Western, Educated, Industrialized, Rich, and Democratic; see Henrich, Heine, & Norenzayan, 2010). We think not. We join Ehrenreich (2006) in noting that people in modern societies still crave a more groupish, connected state, and that they have found numerous ways to climb up to Durkheim's "sacred" or collective level. (Arrows in Fig. 1 represent activities, behaviors, or contexts that can bring about phase change in either direction. We label these "Uppers" and "Downers.") Ehrenreich analyzes raves, festivals, rock concerts, and sporting events, showing the transition from individual to collective that happens in each case. She does not discuss the corporate world, but a moment's reflection shows us that many organizations work hard to bring about this phase change.

Phase change in organizations

The most extreme examples of this phase change can be found in the armed forces, where service members continue to perform close order drill (which involves hours of synchronized marching) in lieu of engaging in more battlefield-relevant drills (Dynan, 2006). Despite the fact that no country has fought a war requiring close order drill over a century, it remains a powerful ego-dissolving activity enabling people to bond in a manner military personnel describe as self-transcendent, as if they are becoming one with the group (McNeill, 1997).

In corporations, activities such as synchronized drumming are sometimes the focus of team building retreats. Some firms throw dance parties for their employees and facilitate other shared experiences outside of work in order to enhance connectedness, cohesion, and a sense of oneness, while others encourage their

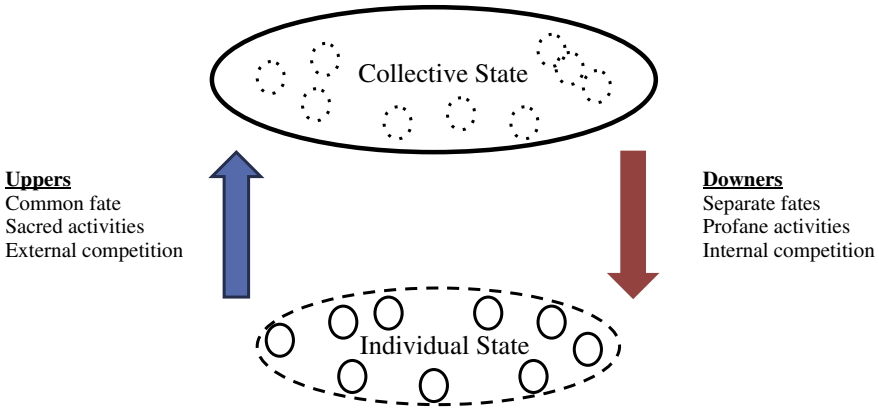


Fig. 1. The two levels of Homo duplex.

employees to participate in collective yoga or meditation with coworkers during breaks (Hsieh, 2010). Perhaps the most famous example is at Walmart, where each day employees participate in the Walmart chant before they begin their work or discuss their goals for the day. But does this work?

Phase changes increase trust and cohesion

There is some empirical evidence that these activities really do increase trust and cohesion in groups. Synchronized movement (a component in many rituals leading to self-transcendent experiences) really does lead to a perception of the merging between the self and others (Paladino, Mazzurega, Pavani, & Schubert, 2010), which presumably makes people less self-focused and more groupish. There is also evidence that synchronized movement enhances cooperative ability and cooperation (Valdesolo, Ouyang, & DeSteno, 2010; Wiltermuth & Heath, 2009), altruism and compassion (Desteno, 2009), and compliance with orders to aggress against people in other groups (Wiltermuth, 2011).

Distinguishing phase changes from general groupishness

It is important to note, however, that there is a critical distinction between Durkheim's notion of "inter-social" emotions which supposedly leave a person's personality and autonomy intact and are broadly consistent with Homo heuristicus' socially biased nature, and the second, higher-level set of emotions experienced during certain kinds of activities, wherein the individual becomes at least partially subsumed by (or transcends into) the collective. (In Fig. 1 this is represented by using dotted circles representing individuals in the top portion of the figure, which is suggestive of individuals being more open to the will of the group while possibly never completely eliminating their sense of individuality.) For example, Homo heuristicus may follow a simple heuristic such as "surround yourself with people like you." This is consistent with current research on the notion of organizational attachment and similar constructs, which are thought of as attitudinal or behavioral dependent variables, but does not necessarily involve ego-dissolving activities. In many cases organizational attachment is operationalized in terms of absenteeism, organizational commitment and identification, or intentions to stay with the organization (Tsui & Egan, 1992). In this case it is clear that Homo heuristicus might prefer to be a part of a group, but this is not the same thing as seeking out or needing to find meaning through a sense of oneness or merging with the collective. Durkheim's claim was that a particular emotional state experienced in the context of ritual could affect certain kinds of cooperation-related outcomes, such as the previously mentioned variables of interest (e.g., lower levels of turnover or increases in organizational identification). Homo duplex, after all, is motivated to participate in ego-dissolving activities (such as synchronized movement), which, by definition, minimize the sense of self and reduce one's sense of autonomy.

We submit that this is not necessarily an all-or-nothing phenomenon, but that the degree to which individuals are able to attain the higher, more communal level during these activities should predict meaningful dependent variables of interest, including organizational attachment. There is preliminary evidence that this might be the case. Fischer, Callander, Reddish, and Bulbulia (2013) analyzed the effect of nine rituals, which varied in their levels of synchronized movement and in the degree to which participants felt the activities were sacred, on prosocial behavior. The researchers found that sacredness played a role in the effect of synchronized movement on prosocial activity. Their findings support the conjecture that ritualistic synchronized activities can, indeed, increase the sense of oneness Durkheim mentions, particularly when sacred values or norms are a part of the activity. Consistent with a broader definition given by Tetlock, 2003, 'sacred values' in this study referred broadly to activities that cannot be priced. It concerns things that ought not to be violated, and that are beyond trade-off or sacrifice. This is a fine example of Homo duplex in action, and a clear illustration of what sets Homo duplex apart from his less sacralizing, less groupish counterparts. Thus far our discussion has focused on the conceptual foundations for these different views of human nature. We now turn to the theoretical foundations of the Homo duplex view.

How did humans become Homo duplex?

Viewing human beings as Homo duplex does not contradict the Homo heuristicus perspective; it extends it. Both perspectives assume that human beings are products of natural selection, that they are driven largely by intuitive and emotional processes, and that they are not particularly skilled at unbiased reasoning. The psychology of the individual level is quite easy to explain in evolutionary terms: it follows directly from the logic of individual-level selection. Individuals who could cultivate good dyadic relationships (which includes avoiding being exploited) outcompeted their neighbors who lacked the heuristics and emotions that fostered such relationships (e.g., see Trivers, 1971, on the evolution of reciprocal altruism, which depends on a suite of moral emotions).

Multilevel selection

The psychology of the collective level is harder to explain using only individual-level selection, but it follows very directly from considerations of multi-level selection, including group selection (Wilson, 2003, 2012; Wilson & Wilson, 2007). Our genes come down to us not only because some individuals outcompeted their neighbors, but also because some groups outcompeted neighboring groups. Darwin (1871) noted that traits that helped groups cohere could lead to the success of those groups in competition, and this competition is a form of natural selection. As he put it:

> The advantage which disciplined soldiers have over undisciplined hordes follows chiefly from the confidence which each man feels in his comrades.... *Selfish and contentious people will not cohere, and without coherence nothing can be effected. (p. 135).*

Durkheim and Darwin were both interested in the miracle of group coherence and cohesion, and organizational scholars are too. The contribution of the Homo duplex model is that it calls attention to the capacities people have for submerging or transcending their own ordinary "profane" concerns and becoming "simply a part of a whole," as Durkheim put it. Such self-transcendence is bound to have implications for ethical behavior—for better and for worse.

Group-level adaptations

The everyday way people understand human nature in the context of evolutionary biology is encapsulated by the expression, "survival of the fittest," coined by Herbert Spencer (1864). The phrase suggests that the evolutionary process selects the *individuals* with bodies and minds most adapted to their environments to pass on their genes. The idea that groups could be units of selection or vehicles for genes was firmly rejected in a pair of influential books from the 1960s and 1970s (Dawkins, 1976; Williams, 1996). This rejection lead to the individualism of evolutionary biology and the subsequent methodological individualism of the psychological sciences throughout much of the 20th century (Campbell, 1994; Wilson & Wilson, 2007). However, the notion that evolutionary processes can operate simultaneously at the individual and at the group level—hence "multilevel selection"— has gained traction in

recent years (Haidt, 2012; Traulsen & Nowak, 2006; Wilson, 2003; Wilson, Van Vugt, & O'Gorman, 2008). At the same time, multilevel theories and methods are beginning to proliferate in the social sciences (Ashkanasy, 2003; Cacioppo & Berntson, 1992; Chen, Bliese, & Mathieu, 2005; Klein & Kozlowski, 2000a, 2000b; Morgeson & Hofmann, 1999; Schneider, Smith, & Sipe, 2000).

The key implication of this work for researchers in behavioral ethics is that humans may have inherited a suite of biobehavioral adaptations and tendencies conducive to acting in the interest of groups, above and beyond what might be expected under the Homo economicus or Homo heuristicus models. Recent studies have shown that some of the neurobiological adaptations humans have developed for moral behavior work explicitly at the group level rather than at the individual level.

For example, the hormone oxytocin is often associated with the formation of interpersonal attachments and trust (Lee, Macbeth, Pagani, & Young, 2009; Zak, 2005). But it is not simply a generalized "feel good" hormone. Rather, in addition to increasing prosociality *within* groups, it can actually promote defensive aggression against outgroups (De Dreu et al., 2010), along with envy and gloating (Shamay-Tsoory et al., 2009). Although it has been linked to ethnocentrism (De Dreu, Greer, Van Kleef, Shalvi, & Handgraaf, 2011), it has also been shown to help organization members choose allies in the context of intergroup conflict (De Dreu, Greer, Handgraaf, Shalvi, & Van Kleef, 2011). All of these consequences of the release of oxytocin serve a group-related purpose—namely, they serve to bind individuals to highly cooperative higher-level units, often in the service of outcompeting other groups. The organizational antecedents of the release of oxytocin and other neurobiological phenomena should therefore be investigated not only for reasons related to group performance, but also for reasons related to ethical behavior. It should be noted for completeness that it does not follow that oxytocin and other neuropeptides associated with groupishness must exist as a result of group selection. It can be argued, for example, that the neuropeptides associated with the formation of interpersonal attachments were simply exapted through cultural processes and used to bind individuals not only to other persons, but also to more abstract things such as groups, cultures, ideas, or even gods. It also bears noting that biology is not determinative. It is only one part of the multilevel evolutionary story. Homo duplex can be expected to engage in group-level behaviors in a way Homo heuristicus does not. For this reason, we propose that the Homo duplex model may be a more complete and psychologically realistic portrait of human nature, particularly as it relates to group-related motivations and behaviors.

Behavioral ethics for Homo duplex

Ultimately, the Homo duplex view will alter the way researchers think about the design of ethical systems. However, before we can outline the implications of the Homo duplex view for ethical systems research and design, we must establish some sort of normative framework, so that we can say when or why a particular manipulation or intervention will make people behave in a more or less ethical way. We offer two complementary standards for identifying ethical and unethical behavior.

Two normative standards

Our first standard is the *common norms* standard. Trevino, Weaver, and Reynolds (2006) defined behavioral ethics as the study of "individual behavior that is subject to or judged according to generally accepted moral norms of behavior" (p. 952). According to this standard we can look at how behavioral ethicists can increase the degree to which behavior in organizations conforms to "generally accepted norms." This approach has the virtue of allowing research to move forward without getting caught up in definitional questions.

Using the language of Moral Foundations Theory (Haidt & Graham, 2007) we note that these norms will generally rest on two moral foundations: *Care/harm* (which is about preventing direct harm or suffering) and *Fairness/cheating* (which is about protecting people from exchanges in which one party takes more than it gives, particularly if it uses fraud or force in the exchange). These are the two moral foundations that are most universally endorsed across cultures and across the political spectrum in Western nations (Graham et al., 2011). Every major business scandal triggers outrage based on these foundations—managers or executives lie, deceive, and otherwise cheat in order to reap financial rewards in ways that harm other stakeholders. Looking at the common norms standard allows us to point to the most prototypical and egregious examples of ethical failures in business and say, "these are the kinds of activities we are talking about; let us figure out how to get fewer of them."

Our second standard is *moral capital*. Haidt (2012) defined moral capital as "*the resources that sustain a moral community*" (p. 292). Moral capital includes social capital (Adler & Kwon, 2002; Putnam, 1995); bonds of trust are surely an important part of a moral community, but the term "moral capital" was coined because social capital is not enough to maintain a moral community over time. Trust and cooperation can decay in the absence of effective means for monitoring and punishing cheaters and slackers (Fehr & Gächter, 2002). Haidt noted that moral communities (or moral systems) are emergent entities, in the sociological sense. They are more than the sum of their members, but their emergence is possible only because individual human beings are so good at generating "consensual hallucinations" or "moral matrices" (Haidt, 2012, p. 206). A healthy moral community requires a good fit between the stuff that is in each individual's head (i.e., moral psychology and intuitions) and more sociological constructs, existing outside of any individual head (i.e., norms, culture, institutions). Haidt offered an expanded definition of moral capital as "the degree to which a community possesses interlocking sets of values, virtues, norms, practices, identities, institutions, and technologies that mesh well with evolved psychological mechanisms and thereby enable the community to suppress or regulate selfishness and make cooperation possible" (p. 292).

Looking at moral capital allows us to specify our second normative standard: moral actions are *those that promote the moral capital of a firm*. They are actions that strengthen the emergent web of people, practices, meanings, and resources, which enable a firm to suppress or regulate selfishness. Moral capital helps a firm to sustain cooperation and create long-term value for shareholders and other stakeholders. Of course, a highly cohesive group can more effectively carry out unethical behavior and then "circle the wagons" as well. The Mafia is an example of an institution with high moral capital in a technical sense—quite often appealing to innate moral psychology to create a cooperative group—but at a higher level of analysis, this is in pursuit of societal norms as contrary to the common norms standard as could be. But when we put our two standards together, this problem disappears. A group that maintains high moral capital while respecting common norms of business practice is likely to be a boon to society, generating value in a sustainable way.

Ethical profiles of Homo duplex

Durkheim's ideas may be particularly useful for the study of business ethics because it is only in real groups and organizations that Durkheim's collective level can be reached; it is nearly impossible to study this level using strangers in a laboratory setting. The

shift to the collective level is always temporary, and it often occurs in the context of rituals or sacred practices (Turner, 1969), which are hard to re-create in a behavioral lab. Although there has been some behavioral research on ritual performed in the field (e.g., Konvalinka et al., 2011), much of the work in psychology is done using interactions between strangers (Sears, 1986) where truly collective psychological states might be difficult or uncomfortable to achieve.

Each level produces its own profile of ethical and unethical behaviors, and so far much of the research and theory on this topic has been about people in the individual state (Brief, 2012). The collective state, as described by Durkheim, has been studied less by behavioral ethicists. There has been an abundance of work on group cohesion in the organizational literature (Andrews, Kacmar, Blakely, & Bucklew, 2008; Harrison, Price, & Bell, 1998; Petersen, Dietz, & Frey, 2004), but much of that work focuses on attitudes, demography, and other individual-level states and traits or their interactions. Yet some of the most ethical *and* unethical things people do in organizations are done not to advance the self-interest of the individual actor but to promote or protect the collective entity. This can especially be the case when individuals strongly identify with the organization (Umphress, Bingham, & Mitchell, 2010). For example, Hoyt, Price, and Emrick (2011) showed that the more strongly leaders believed in the importance of their group goals the more likely they were to rate themselves as justified in engaging in unethical actions on behalf of the group.

It seems that strong identification with the collective may have unique explanatory and predictive power when trying to understand human behavior, and the fields of evolutionary anthropology and social neuroscience have begun to recognize its importance to their work (Bowles, 2009; Cacioppo & Cacioppo, 2012; Cohen, Mundry, & Kirschner, 2013). Adding the term "Homo duplex" to our analytical toolkit might prompt more exploration of collective states and activities, but we must always keep in mind that we can think of the Homo duplex aspect of human nature as being built on top of or coexisting with Homo economicus and Homo heuristicus.

Bringing in our second normative standard of moral capital can make the job seem a bit easier: A well-maintained firm will have higher moral capital, and higher moral capital will, in turn, suppress unethical behavior throughout the firm. In other words, an organization that is carefully tailored for the imperfect, heuristic-using creatures that we are will attain to a much greater degree those "interlocking sets of values, virtues, norms, practices, identities, institutions, and technologies that mesh well with evolved psychological mechanisms." When the fit is good, it will make it far easier for the community to "suppress or regulate selfishness and make cooperation possible." For example, in a firm with high moral capital, people have a shared culture and shared sense of mission, so employees have a sense of "standing" to praise or criticize the actions of others. They can use informal sanctions, such as gossip, or a simple private conversation, to bring back into line an individual who seems to be straying. In contrast, UBS bank might be held up as an example of a firm with very low moral capital. In the wake of a rogue trading scandal in 2011, a profile of the bank in the New York Times reported the following:

> Mr. Adoboli's...unauthorized trading also seems consistent with a culture at UBS that stressed individual advancement over team efforts, according to former investment bankers. "The problem isn't the culture," one of them told me. "The problem is that *there wasn't any culture. There are silos. Everyone is separate. People cut their own deals, and it's every man for himself*. A lot of people made a lot of money that way, and it fueled jealousies and efforts to get ever better deals. People thought of themselves first, and then maybe the bank, if they thought about it at all. (Stewart, 2011, para. 7, emphasis added)

If this account is correct, then UBS's lack of moral capital turned the bank into a giant festival of individual-level self-interestedness, which led to billions of dollars in losses and penalties. Researchers in behavioral ethics might point to the lack of moral capital, or the constant priming of economic schemas, as reasons for the systemic spread of risky and selfish activity, with little concern for the long-term success of the firm (Molinsky, Grant, & Margolis, 2012). Stewart (2011) also reported that "the unauthorized trading is only the latest in a series of egregious ethical and legal lapses at UBS that have badly damaged the bank's once-sterling reputation" (para. 3). Might organizations that view their employees as Homo duplex do better?

Understanding the desire to be part of something larger

Using the Homo duplex perspective for understanding human behavior in organizations, we have an opportunity to think of ways to promote desirable behavior without necessarily aligning incentives or tweaking a dozen heuristics. Unlike the Homo economicus perspective, which uses social norms only to avoid punishment, or the Homo heuristicus perspective, which views them as rules to guide individual behavior, the Homo duplex perspective paints a picture of a deeply social creature who truly wants to adhere to the norms of the group, and who is motivated to identify with and become one with the group. Homo duplex wants to develop tight bonds with fellow group members and seeks out opportunities to immerse himself or herself in the pursuit of something larger and more meaningful than the self. With this view we get the unique opportunity to move beyond the individual and consider how characteristics of the group can be leveraged to promote ethical behavior *and* moral capital. Below we outline a few examples and offer suggestions for areas of future research.

Creating meaningful work

While scholars do not call the Homo duplex view out by name, some existing empirical work is broadly consistent with this view. In a workplace setting, we often see people acting like Homo duplex when they work together with others to pursue meaningful goals which they view as a *calling*, rather than as a job or career (Wrzesniewski, McCauley, Rozin, & Schwartz, 1997). In contrast to a more transactionally oriented workplace, the meaningful workplace becomes a place where sacred obligations are fulfilled, and collective activities work to promote a morally relevant goal. For example, despite low pay, low prestige, low status, and sometimes dangerous work, zookeepers often derive a great deal of satisfaction and meaning from their work. Some feel they have been called to their line of work by a higher power—selected because of their unique gifts and talents to serve a purpose and advance the interests of collectives and others (even if "others" in this case are not of the same species) (Bunderson, & Thompson, 2009). There is already a great deal of research under different topical domains that has begun to address the relation between meaningful work and various outcomes such as organizational identification (Pratt, Rockmann, & Kaufmann, 2006), engagement (May, Gilson, & Harter, 2004), and work behavior (Bunderson & Thompson, 2009) among others (for a review see Rosso, Dekas, & Wrzesniewski, 2010). Callings seem likely to influence ethical behavior as well, particularly since callings have been defined explicitly with a moral component as "meaningful beckoning toward activities that are morally, socially, and personally significant" (Wrzesniewski, Dekas, & Rosso, 2009, p. 115). These areas all fit neatly with the Homo duplex view of human nature. We are simply reinterpreting this work to suggest that to the extent that people see themselves as part of a larger group working together to create virtuous outcomes, they can be expected to have very high moral capital—to suppress self-interest and work together cooperatively, not to

maximize their ultimate take-home pay or personal comfort, but because they are a "part of a whole." They want that whole to succeed in its mission, whether that whole is a small team, a department, or an entire organization.

Building group-level identities and shared values

We also see a similar pattern of positive ethical behavior and increased moral capital among individuals who share values and strongly identify with their organizations and work groups. Employees who feel that their managers share their moral values are more internally motivated to act morally and are more likely to cooperate, voluntarily defer to management, morally self-regulate, and engage in voluntary extra-role behavior such as taking on additional tasks to benefit the organization (Tyler & Blader, 2005; Tyler, Callahan, & Frost, 2007). These shared moral values seem to facilitate tight-knit bonds between employees, and strong bonds such as those established through regular advice and consultation have been shown to result in greater organization citizenship behavior or "above and beyond" behavior for the group (Zagenczyk, Gibney, Murrell, & Boss, 2008).

Building hives rather than silos

The Homo duplex view leads naturally to a view of organizations as hives, rather than (as in the UBS example) silos. Indeed, Haidt (2012) uses the metaphor that human nature is "90% chimp, 10% bee" (p. 187), meaning that we are, for the most part, self-serving creatures (like chimps) whose good deeds can usually be traced back to self-interested concerns, such as reciprocity or reputation management. But we are able, under special circumstances, to become like bees in a hive. We can transcend selfishness and become superb team players. The challenge for behavioral ethicists who take the Homo duplex perspective is to foster greater hivishness while steering clear of the distinctive ethical risks of hivish behavior. For example, as with unethical pro-organizational behaviors, workplace gossip sometimes has negative connotations, and in an organization staffed by Homo economicus, we can expect individuals to use gossip to destroy their rivals and advance their own careers. But in more hivish groups, such as a crew team, gossip has been found to play a pro-social role—members gossip about those who are not pulling their weight, and the fear of such gossip motivates all rowers to be better citizens (Beersma & Van Kleef, 2011; Kniffin & Sloan Wilson, 2010; Kniffin & Wilson, 2005). Gossip can also contribute to the creation of lasting ingroup bonds and loyalties (Bosson, Johnson, Niederhoffer, & Swann, 2006). Gossip can therefore promote moral capital, especially when the gossip works to shame violators of honor codes and collective values.

The risk of hivishness is obvious: hives (like individuals) value self-preservation, and will therefore promote the interests of the group even if that sometimes means trampling on the rights of some individuals within the group, or the interests of external actors such as regulators or other outside stakeholders. Hivish organizations such as fraternities, athletic teams, and the armed forces often have their own honor codes and group interests often win out over individual interests or outsider interests. Thus, if an employee inadvertently sees another employee engaging in an unethical act, rather than reporting that behavior to regulators or other external actors, the act may be 'handled' privately—sometimes leading to colossal ethical breakdowns when the hive tries to protect its lawbreakers, as happened in the Penn State child abuse scandal. However, simply because there is no external sanctioning does not mean that there can be no internal sanctioning. In fact, well-functioning hivish organizations may implement swift, severe penalties on unethical behavior, but may choose to do so privately in order to save the reputation of the group at the cost of the reputation of the individual violator.

Despite these risks, we think that hivish organizations may often be supremely ethical organizations. To see this, at least as a theoretical possibility, let us contrast three organizations. The first is staffed entirely by Homo economicus, whose goal is to minimize the amount of work done while maximizing total rewards taken home. The second is staffed entirely by Homo heuristicus, whose goals are mostly self-serving, but who is not quite as zealous about self-interest, and who can often be induced to act in ways contrary to self-interest when norms or other widely used heuristics point to other kinds of behavior. The third organization is staffed entirely by Homo duplex—people who see their work as a calling, identify strongly with the organization, and want to maximize the organization's success and prestige. We think that in most cases, people in this third organization will be happier, more engaged, and more determined to follow accepted norms of business practice and maintain high moral capital. For example, they would be less likely to tolerate dangerous or legally risky behavior, which could damage the company. They can be counted on especially to care about the company's reputation—in direct contrast to the picture painted above of employees at UBS. We cannot be certain of the outcome of our thought experiment, but we hope that future researchers will compare hivish and non-hivish organizations, and document the recurring ethical differences among them—particularly in relation to the questions, "At which group is the ethical behavior being directed," and "What kinds of moral tradeoffs are being made," for example, between care and fairness for others on the one hand and group loyalty on the other.

Studying Homo duplex

So far we have described the phase change inherent with the Homo duplex view, but we have not expanded on the kinds of activities, behaviors, or contexts that may lead to phase change. As shown in Fig. 1, there could be any number of variables (represented by the "Uppers" and "Downers" categories) that could lead to a transition from the individual state to the collective state and vice versa.

Uppers can be characterized by the presence of shared fates (whether they are rewards or punishments), salient external competitors, and activities that can be considered deeply meaningful, ritualistic, or sacred. Downers mirror these characteristics with individualistic fates, intra-organizational competition, and profane activities.

In sum, uppers are activities that seem to tap into our need to lose ourselves from time to time in groups. They can be considered an important class of ethical behavior that the Homo economicus and Homo heuristicus models tend to ignore or minimize. Homo duplex, however, focuses our attention squarely on this transition in the service of understanding how individuals merge into functional collectives.

Functionality and ethical systems design

This class of behaviors is perfectly designed for the study of real human groups in organizations; they lie at the intersection of ethical activity and the performance not only of individuals, but also of collectives. Recall that the definition of human nature used in this article implies universality—that all human groups have the capability to be pushed into the collective state. While universality does not necessarily suggest an adaptive or functional quality, it does force us to question whether and to what degree uppers *could* serve an adaptive function for human groups beyond simply making people feel good or be nice to each other. A central assumption regarding the Homo duplex view specifically has been that the addition of uppers ought to play some functional role in benefitting organizations in a tangible way. One way or another, we would expect that uppers increase the odds of the survival of the firm or

confer some advantage in competition against other groups. But what are the boundaries? And what kinds of individual differences might moderate or mediate the functional utility of these activities?

We think the first place to look is moral psychology. Specifically, by measuring the impact of moral values and orientations on the performance of groups. To what extent do some teams value loyalty or seniority? Do some teams engage in sacred or ritualistic activities more than others pushing them to the collective level? Most importantly, do those orientations and activities actually enhance the performance of teams? And what role might moral diversity play with respect to organizational performance?

Unlike previous models of human nature, only the Homo duplex model compels us to ask these questions because designing systems to promote ethical behavior requires more than attending to the treatment of individuals in organizations. It may also require behaviors that appeal to our evolved tendency to lose ourselves in the process of sustaining a moral community capable of acting together as one.

Conclusion

Business is about competition, and competition breeds extraordinary levels of cooperation as people shift back and forth between selfishness and groupishness, effortlessly and often unconsciously. An exciting new frontier in the field of behavioral ethics is to study those shifts and the complex profiles of ethical and unethical behavior that they produce. We think that Homo duplex makes the pursuit of that goal more possible because views of human nature have been evolving steadily over the last hundred years and ethical thought has been evolving in tandem. After the long reign of the Homo economicus view, researchers began to develop a more psychologically realistic picture of human nature—Homo heuristicus, which coincided with the rise of behavioral ethics. Homo duplex, we suggest, is the next step in our evolving understanding of human nature. The Homo duplex model is *not* necessarily more accurate in predicting unethical actions in all organizations, but a research agenda that accounts for phenomena unique to highly groupish organizations can broaden our understanding of a wide range of behavioral ethics issues, and organizational researchers are uniquely well positioned to study Homo duplex in action.

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